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Asia Insurance

Summer Series: Leverage in insurance; attractive ROE, but no free lunch

Leverage is a defining feature of insurance economics. Premiums are collected upfront, claims are paid later, and the resulting float allows insurers to run larger balance sheets relative to their capital base. This is how the sector converts thin underwriting margins, often below 10%, into attractive ROE. The trade-off is equally clear: higher leverage brings greater sensitivity to underwriting cycles, asset markets, funding conditions and solvency pressures. For equity investors, leverage sits at the centre of the valuation debate. Too much excess capital dilutes ROE, but excessive leverage raises the implied cost of equity and can drive a valuation discount. The right question is not whether leverage is good or bad, but whether it is being used with sufficient capital resilience and earnings quality. In this report, we assess insurance leverage through three lenses: underwriting leverage, asset leverage and financial leverage. Overall, we view sector leverage as manageable, barring a severe macro shock. Our equity picks are AIA, PingAn-H, T&D HD, Samsung F&M, Fubon FHC, SBI Life, and Thai Life. Among opportunities on the credit side, our picks include Meiji Yasuda in Japan and AIA in Hong Kong.

- **Underwriting leverage.** This measures insurance risk per dollar of capital. For non-life, we use net written premiums as a multiple of IFRS BV. For life, we use insurance reserves on the B/S as a multiple of IFRS BV. The appeal is clear: US\$3 of premiums per US\$1 of surplus, written at a 5% underwriting margin, generates a 15% return on surplus. The risk is equally clear: cyclicalities, adverse claims development and reserve weakness can quickly erode returns. In Asia, insurers with a conservative reserving history seem to enjoy a valuation premium and lower volatility. Those are AIA, Samsung Life, and Thai Life.
- **Asset leverage.** This measures investment risk per dollar of capital, using total assets divided by IFRS BV. At 10x asset leverage, a 1% increase in investment yield adds 10%p to pre-tax ROE, all else equal. However, the same gearing can pressure capital, BV and solvency ratios when rates, spreads, equity markets or credit losses move against the B/S. Asian life/non-life insurers had an average 14x/4x asset leverage respectively, reflecting the differences in liability duration and cashflow characteristics. Indian insurers' higher asset leverage seemingly reflects simple product mix and less stringent solvency capital framework while AIA, Samsung Life and Thai Life appear more conservative.
- **Financial leverage.** This measures debt risk per dollar of capital, using borrowings divided by borrowings, IFRS BV and net CSM. Debt can fund growth or M&A without equity dilution, but it is less flexible than equity. In periods of stress, weaker subsidiary cash upstreaming and tighter refinancing conditions can pressure HoldCo liquidity, dividends and TSR. Debt-servicing capacity is therefore another important lens when assessing financial leverage.
- **Solvency is the binding constraint.** Solvency ratio compares available capital with required capital ([link](#)). Higher leverage can enhance ROE, but usually increases required capital and reduces solvency buffers. Solvency frameworks are therefore designed to discourage excessive leverage, particularly where underwriting, asset or debt risks could weaken capital resilience under stress. In Asia, the average FY26E ROE for life/non-life insurers is 13%/12%.

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Relevant publications

[Asia Insurance: Summer Series: Life company analysis: dividends need cash, not just IFRS profit](#), 21 July 2026

[Asia Insurance: Summer Series: A guide to Solvency Capital beyond all the Abbreviations](#), 14 July 2026

[Asia Insurance: Summer Series: China's humanoid robots open a new frontier for P&C growth](#), 22 June 2026

[Asia Insurance: Summer Series: China's marine insurance: Strategic repatriation of maritime risk](#), 6 July 2026

Investment thesis

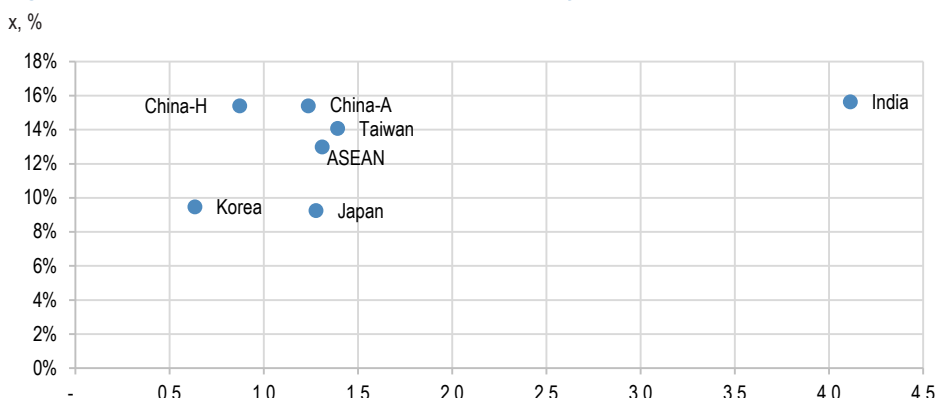
Insurance leverage: three lenses on risk and return

Our final note in the summer series focuses on three key measures of insurance leverage: 1) underwriting leverage, 2) asset leverage, and 3) financial leverage. Leverage is central to insurance economics. Insurers assume risks today in exchange for future obligations: premiums are collected upfront, while claims and benefits are paid later. This timing gap creates a sizeable pool of investable capital before policyholder liabilities are settled. This creates three distinct forms of leverage. First, underwriting leverage captures the scale of insurance risk written relative to the capital base. Second, asset leverage measures the size of the investment balance sheet relative to IFRS capital. Third, financial leverage reflects the use of debt within the overall capital structure.

Based on available financial data, our observation is that Asian insurers have historically focused more on 'capital adequacy' than 'capital efficiency'. As a result, balance sheet leverage appears more conservatively managed than in developed markets. Relatively low underwriting leverage across the region we think may reflect several factors: less profitable underwriting per unit of capital consumed, given the historical dominance of low-margin savings products in life; greater underwriting cyclicality in non-life products; less mature risk-modelling experience versus developed-market insurers; regulatory intervention in pricing, including auto insurance and medical indemnity; and less developed experience tables for modelling long-term risks, particularly morbidity risk.

That said, we view Asian insurers' leverage metrics as manageable, barring a severe macro shock over the foreseeable future. Our equity picks are AIA, Ping An-H, T&D Holdings, Samsung F&M, Fubon FHC, SBI Life and Thai Life. On the credit side, our preferred opportunities include Meiji Yasuda in Japan and AIA in Hong Kong.

Figure 1: Asia Insurance: FY26E P/B vs. ROE comparison by market



Source: Bloomberg Finance L.P., J.P. Morgan estimates. Price data as of 28 Jul 2026.

Broadly speaking, insurance is a highly regulated financial product with typically modest underwriting margins, often below 10% and, in many cases, around 5% or lower. For an insurer with a cost of equity above 10%, a low-margin standalone underwriting model is unlikely to meet shareholder return expectations without leverage. Insurers therefore use leverage to convert thin operating margins into more attractive ROE.

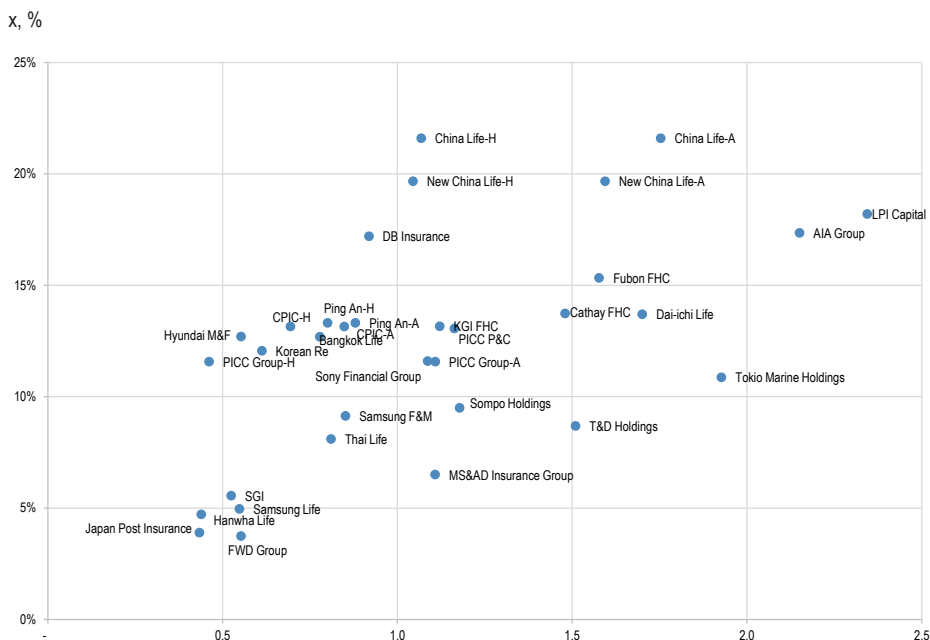
From a stock valuation perspective, leverage can be an important driver of multiple expansion, provided it is used prudently. We see two main routes to improving capital efficiency: reducing excess capital that dilutes ROE, and increasing profitability through appropriate use of leverage. The key is to strike the right balance between higher returns and sufficient solvency resilience. The trade-off is balance sheet sensitivity. Higher leverage can enhance ROE, but it also increases exposure to underwriting volatility, asset market movements, funding conditions and solvency pressure.

Regulators address this through solvency capital frameworks, which are designed to limit excessive leverage and protect policyholders. Higher leverage typically increases required capital, which in turn reduces the solvency ratio, all else equal. Minimum solvency requirements, together with regulatory thresholds for dividend approval, act as policy tools to protect customers through market and underwriting cycles. In addition, by recognising only part of debt financing as available capital relative to required capital, regulators discourage insurers from taking excessive balance sheet leverage.

For equity investors, this creates a clear valuation debate. Excess capital can be criticised for inefficient capital allocation and ROE dilution, but excessive leverage is also penalised for higher balance sheet risk. In practice, investors typically reflect elevated leverage through a higher implied cost of equity and, in many cases, a valuation discount.

The central challenge for insurers is therefore to generate sustainable ROE above the cost of equity while maintaining an adequate solvency buffer. In Asia, life and non-life insurers generate average FY26E ROE of 13% and 12%, respectively (Figure 1).

Figure 2: Asia Insurance: FY26E P/B vs ROE comparison by company



Source: Bloomberg Finance L.P., J.P. Morgan estimates. Note: 1) Price data as of 28 Jul 2026. 2) India is excluded for presentation simplicity.

Table 1: Asia Insurance: Valuation comparison table

Local currency, %, x

Company	B'berg Code	Rating	Price (28-Jul-2026)	PT (Dec-26)	Upside/downside	P/E 26e	P/E 27e	P/BV 26e	P/BV 27e
China									
AIA Group	1299 HK Equity	OW	77.9	112.0	44%	13	11	2.2	2.0
FWD Group	1828 HK Equity	OW	29.5	47.0	60%	17	13	0.6	0.5
China Life-H	2628 HK Equity	OW	27.9	40.0	43%	5	4	1.1	1.0
China Life-A	601628 CH Equity	N	40.2	39.0	-3%	20	18	1.8	1.7
Ping An-H	2318 HK Equity	OW	57.1	90.0	58%	7	6	0.8	0.7
Ping An-A	601318 CH Equity	OW	54.2	83.0	53%	7	7	0.9	0.8
CPIC-H	2601 HK Equity	OW	30.0	43.0	43%	6	6	0.7	0.6
CPIC-A	601601 CH Equity	OW	31.7	50.0	58%	7	7	0.8	0.8
New China Life-H	1336 HK Equity	N	47.6	45.0	-6%	6	5	1.0	1.0
New China Life-A	601336 CH Equity	N	62.8	59.0	-6%	8	8	1.6	1.5
PICC Group-H	1339 HK Equity	N	5.3	5.8	9%	6	5	0.5	0.4
PICC Group-A	601319 CH Equity	N	7.5	6.9	-8%	12	10	1.1	1.0
PICC P&C	2328 HK Equity	N	16.2	14.0	-14%	9	8	1.2	1.1
Korea									
Samsung Life*	032830 KP Equity	OW	285,000	580,000	104%	13	13	0.5	0.5
Hanwha Life	088350 KP Equity	UW	4,295	2,100	-51%	7	8	0.4	0.4
Samsung F&M*	000810 KP Equity	OW	609,000	800,000	31%	11	10	0.9	0.8
Hyundai M&F	001450 KP Equity	UW	38,450	22,000	-43%	5	4	0.6	0.5
DB Insurance	005830 KP Equity	OW	159,000	250,000	57%	5	5	0.9	0.9
Korean Re	003690 KP Equity	OW	13,600	17,000	25%	5	7	0.6	0.6
Seoul Guarantee Insurance	031210 KP Equity	OW	41,700	90,000	116%	10	8	0.5	0.5
ASEAN									
Bangkok Life**	BLA TB Equity	OW	25.5	29.1	14%	6	6	0.8	0.7
Thai Life**	TLI TB Equity	OW	11.7	17.5	50%	10	9	0.8	0.8
LPI Capital	LPI MK Equity	OW	15.0	20.0	33%	13	12	2.3	2.3
Taiwan									
Cathay FHC***	2882 TT Equity	OW	95.4	130.0	36%	11	11	1.5	1.3
Fubon FHC***	2881 TT Equity	OW	125.5	69.8	-44%	11	12	1.6	1.4
KGI FHC***	2883 TT Equity	OW	29.6	41.0	39%	10	10	1.1	1.0
Japan									
Dai-ichi Life	8750 JT Equity	N	1,903	1,900	0%	13	13	1.7	1.7
T&D Holdings	8795 JT equity	OW	5,032	5,300	5%	17	11	1.5	1.5
Japan Post Insurance	7181 JT Equity	OW	1,753	1,790	2%	12	11	0.4	0.4
Sony Financial Group	8729 JP Equity	N	156.1	150	-4%	446	17	1.1	1.0
MS&AD Insurance Group***	8725 JT Equity	N	5,039	5,000	-1%	13	11	1.1	1.1
Tokio Marine Holdings***	8766 JT Equity	N	8,234	8,100	-2%	18	16	1.9	1.8
Sompo Holdings***	8630 JT Equity	N	7,264	7,000	-4%	13	12	1.2	1.1
India****									
HDFC Life	HDFCLIFE IN Equity	OW	559	810	45%	53	49	5.9	5.4
SBI Life	SBILIFE IN Equity	OW	1,889	2,510	33%	58	44	8.6	7.3
ICICI Prudential Life	IPRU IN Equity	OW	510	670	31%	51	46	4.8	4.2
ICICI Lombard	ICICIGI IN Equity	OW	1,684	1,990	18%	30	23	5.0	4.4
New India Assurance	NIACL IN Equity	N	163	175	7%	13	9	1.1	1.0
GIC Re	GICRE IN Equity	OW	358	500	40%	8	7	1.1	1.0
LIC India	LICI IN Equity	OW	427	505	18%	9	8	2.4	1.9
Max Financial Services	MAXF IN Equity	OW	1,507	2160	43%	95	83	9.1	8.3

Source: Bloomberg Finance L.P., J.P. Morgan estimates. *: PT as of Jun-27, **: Price data as of 27 July 2026, ***: PT as of Dec-27, ****: PT as of Mar-27.

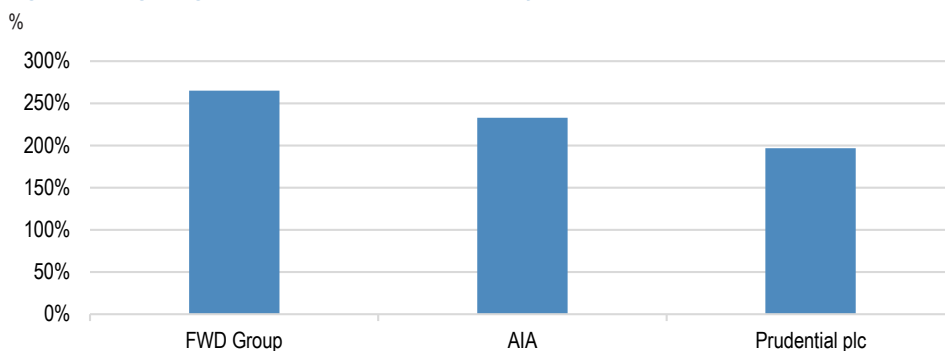
Fixed Income

The senior position of an insurance company's creditors relative to its equity investors means that they do not share in increased profitability. However, they do suffer if increased leverage reduces a company's resilience. This asymmetry means that higher solvency is more desirable. Indeed, this informs many of our recommendations. Our top picks in fixed income include insurers in Hong Kong and Japan.

Meiji Yasuda (bond ticker: MYLIFE) is among our top picks. The 2055 / '35c subordinated bonds are offered at z+189bp (SOT+145pp, \$100.1, 6.1%), we think the bonds look cheap compared to weaker peers. The economic solvency ratio of 208% compares favorably to Japanese peers.

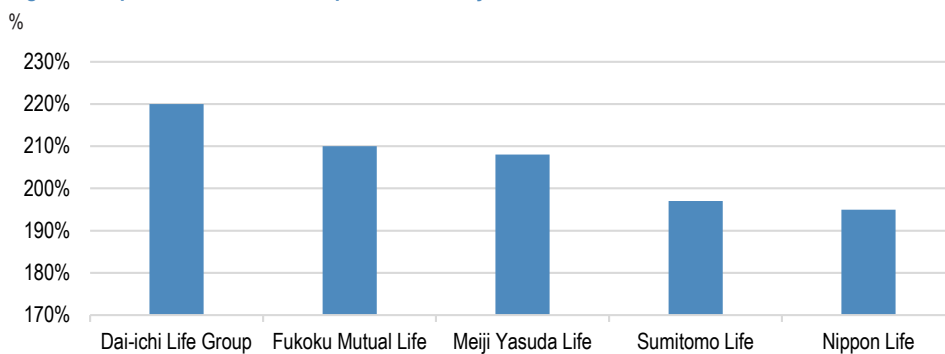
Among Hong Kong insurers, AIA's 2040 bonds are a top pick. Offered at z+137bp (SOT+110bp, \$75.8, 5.7%), we believe they are the strongest structures in the complex with "must pay" coupons. The shareholder capital ratio is 221%, which we think is supportive of the credit profile.

Figure 3: Hong Kong life insurance companies solvency ratios



Group LCSM coverage ratio as of December 31, 2025
Source: Company reports

Figure 4: Japan life insurance companies solvency ratios



Economic Value-Based Solvency Ratio (ESR) as of March 31, 2026
Source: Company reports

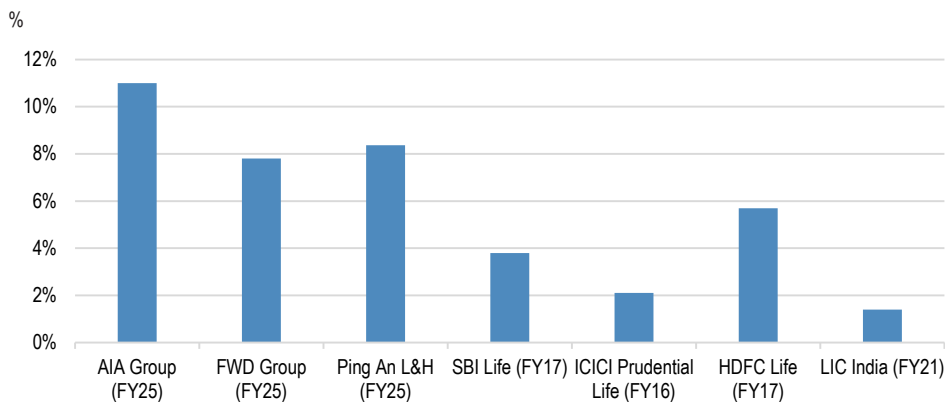
Underwriting leverage

Broadly speaking, an insurer's earnings can be decomposed into two components: insurance profit and investment profit. Our observation is that, for both life and non-life insurers, equity investors typically assign a higher valuation multiple to underwriting earnings, often around 10x to 20x P/E, than to investment earnings, which are more commonly valued at around 2x to 3x P/E. We think this is because underwriting profit is more closely linked to franchise quality, pricing discipline, risk selection and execution capability.

However, insurance products are highly regulated and, in many cases, subject to regulatory approval. This limits the scope for insurers to generate structurally high margins from product pricing alone, given the focus on policyholder protection. As a result, modest underwriting margins are common across the sector. For non-life insurers and reinsurers, underwriting margins are often below 10%, while for life insurers, margins tend to be around 5% or lower.

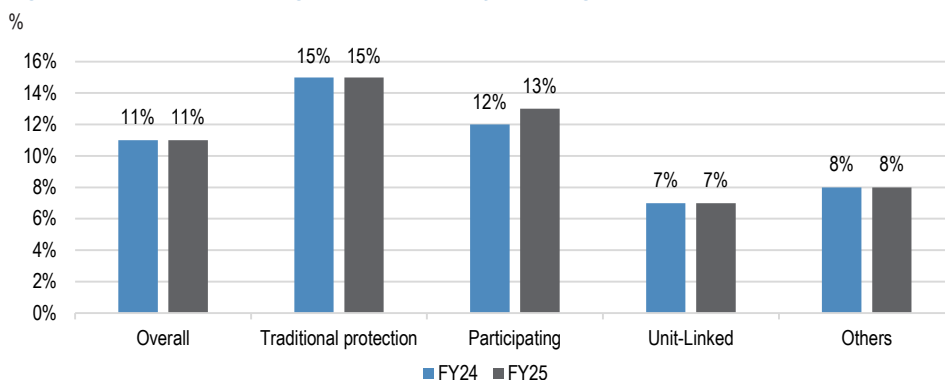
We illustrate this thin margin profile for both life and non-life insurers in Figure 5 and Figure 8. For non-life insurers, we calculate the margin as 100% minus the combined ratio. For life insurers, we use new business CSM, or new business value, divided by the present value of new business premiums, or PVNBP.

Figure 5: Asia Life Insurance: Product margin



Source: AIA Group, FWD Group, Ping An Group FY25 annual report and SBI Life, ICICI Prudential Life, HDFC Life, LIC India IPO prospectus. Note: PVNBP stands for present value of new business premiums. The product margin was measured as new business value divided by PVNBP.

Figure 6: AIA Group: NBV margin (PVNBP basis) by product group



Source: AIA Group FY25 earnings PPT.

Non-life leverage: premium leverage drives underwriting ROE

For non-life insurers and reinsurers, policy duration is relatively short, often less than one year. Travel insurance and auto insurance are good examples, as policies are typically written for a defined short-term period and claims experience emerges relatively quickly. Premium volume is therefore a useful proxy for risk exposure. In this context, the combined ratio is the key measure of underwriting performance, as it captures claims and expenses relative to earned premiums:

Combined ratio = (incurred claims and loss adjustment expenses + underwriting expenses) / earned premiums

In simple terms:

Combined ratio = (claims + expenses) / premiums

The underwriting margin can therefore be expressed as:

Underwriting margin = 1 - combined ratio

Underwriting leverage measures how much insurance risk is written relative to capital. For non-life insurers and reinsurers, we define this as net written premiums divided by book value, or policyholders' surplus. This is a practical measure because premiums written today broadly correspond to the claims risk being assumed today.

For example, if an insurer has book value of US\$100m and writes net premiums of US\$300m, underwriting leverage is 3x. Put simply, the insurer is writing US\$3 of premiums for every US\$1 of surplus. The return impact is straightforward. If the insurer reports a 95% combined ratio, the underwriting margin is 5% (=1-95%). With 3x underwriting leverage, this generates a 15% return on surplus from underwriting alone.

Excluding investment income and taxes, the simplified ROE equation for non-life insurers and reinsurers is therefore:

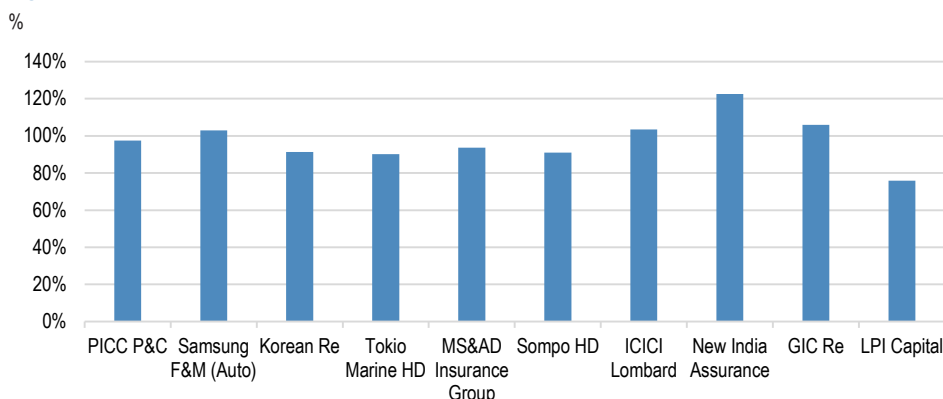
Non-life underwriting ROE = (premium / book value) x (1 - combined ratio)

In Figure 7 and Figure 8, we show the combined ratio and underwriting leverage across Asia insurers for reference.

One important caveat is that the combined ratio reported today is largely based on estimated ultimate claims. Reserve adequacy is therefore a critical part of the analysis. The claims loss development table helps assess whether reserves are conservative or aggressive, which has a direct bearing on underwriting margins, reserve leverage and solvency risk.

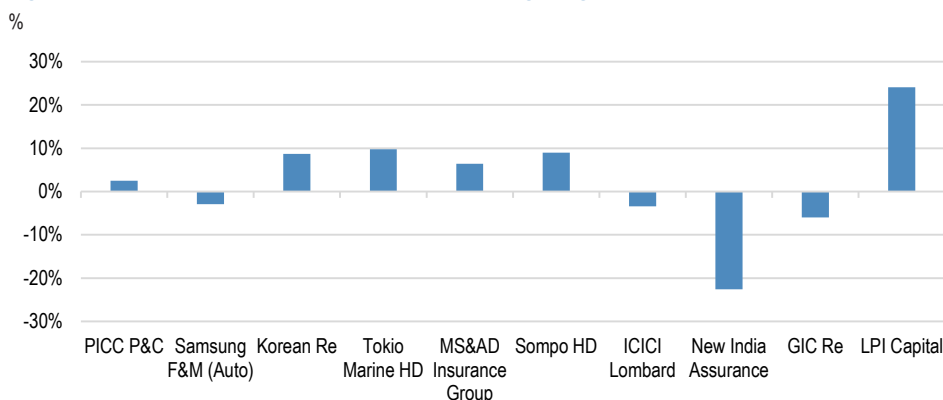
In this note, however, we focus on the conceptual framework for leverage rather than a detailed review of loss development tables. For a deeper dive into reserve analysis, including Python-based modelling of loss development tables, please refer to our summer series on [Asia Insurance: Summer Series: China's marine insurance: Strategic repatriation of maritime risk](#).

Figure 7: Asia Non-Life Insurance: Combined ratio trend (FY25)



Source: Each company's FY25 annual report, J.P. Morgan calculations. Note: 1) ICICI Lombard is based on FY26 due to difference in fiscal year. 2) Samsung F&M combined ratio is specific to auto segment. 3) Tokio Marine FY25 combined ratio presented is based on IFRS (90.2%), J-GAAP combined ratio was 95.6%.

Figure 8: Asia Non-Life Insurance: Non-life underwriting margin



Source: Each company's FY25 annual report, J.P. Morgan calculations. Note: 1) Underwriting margin is calculated as 100% - combined ratio. 2) ICICI Lombard is based on FY26 due to difference in fiscal year. 3) Samsung F&M combined ratio is specific to auto segment. 4) Tokio Marine FY25 combined ratio presented is based on IFRS (90.2%), J-GAAP combined ratio was 95.6%.

Lastly, we highlight that underwriting profitability is cyclical. Pricing, claims inflation, loss trends and reinsurance costs can all move through cycles, creating both risk and investment opportunity for equity investors.

Life leverage: reserve leverage matters more than premium volume

For life insurers, premium volume is a less meaningful measure of risk exposure. Life policies are typically written over much longer periods, in some cases extending across several decades. As a result, current-year premium volume does not fully capture the future risk embedded in policies already in force.

A term life or health protection policy is a useful example. The annual premium may be relatively small, but the policy can create a significant future claim payout if the insured event occurs, such as terminal illness or critical illness, including cancer, heart attack or stroke. The key risk is therefore not simply this year's premium production, but the long-term policy obligation already sitting on the balance sheet.

Broadly speaking, life underwriting profit comes from favourable experience relative to assumptions, which we refer to as the 'experience margin'. This can include lower-than-expected mortality, better morbidity experience, expense savings versus modelled assumptions, or lower policy lapses, which allow insurers to earn fees and future profits from existing policies for longer. In other words, the margin from life business is earned over an extended period, rather than immediately at the point of sale.

This is why life insurance analysis starts with the liability reserve. The reserve represents the amount set aside to meet future obligations to policyholders. Under IFRS-17, this includes the best estimate liability, or BEL, which reflects the best estimate of future cash flows, the risk adjustment, or RA, and the contractual service margin, or CSM. Unlike non-life insurance, where premium volume is often a useful proxy for risk exposure, life insurance leverage should focus more on reserves on the balance sheet and the associated capital requirement.

At the initial stage of analysis, reserve-to-book leverage is therefore a useful metric. It helps investors assess how sensitive shareholders' equity is to changes in actuarial assumptions, including mortality, morbidity, lapse, expenses and discount rates.

Conceptually, the life underwriting earnings driver can be expressed as:

Life underwriting earnings = reserve base x experience margin

To assess life underwriting leverage, we look at insurance reserves as a multiple of IFRS book value, or policyholders' surplus. In simple terms, life reserve leverage asks: How much long-term policy obligation is being supported by each dollar of capital?

Therefore, excluding investment income and taxes, life underwriting ROE can be simplified as:

Life underwriting ROE = (reserves / book value) x experience margin

For example, assume a life insurer has reserves of US\$1,000 and book value of US\$100. This implies 10x reserve leverage. If actual experience improves reserve profitability by only 0.5%, the profit impact would be US\$5 (= US\$1,000 x 0.5%). Against US\$100 of book value, this would add 5% to ROE. This illustrates how even a small improvement in reserve experience can generate a meaningful uplift to ROE when reserve leverage is high.

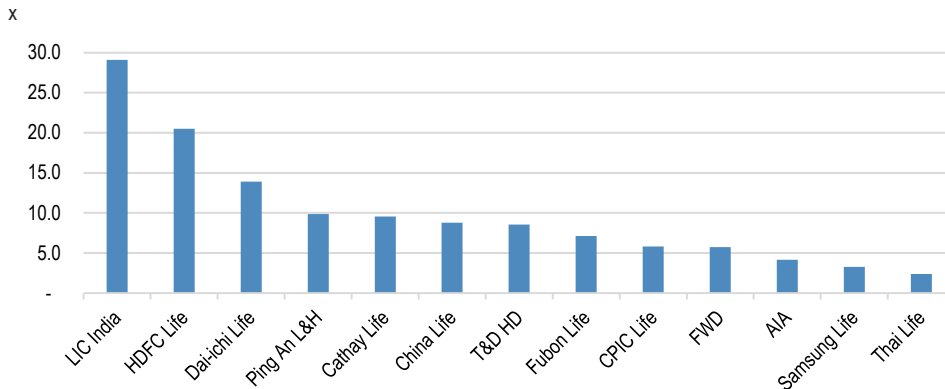
The reverse is also true, which is why investors focus closely on liability reserve quality. A small change in reserving assumptions can have a material impact on earnings and capital.

Reserve movements are closely linked to core capital, balance-sheet capacity, business growth and dividend potential. This is why reserve quality and reserve leverage are such important areas of focus for investors.

Using the same example, assume the company's actuaries conclude that reserves for health claims need to increase by only 2%, due to revised morbidity assumptions. This would require reserve strengthening of US\$20 (=US\$1,000 x 2%). All else equal, book value would fall from US\$100 to US\$80, a 20% decline. This shows how a seemingly modest reserve adjustment can create significant capital damage when reserve leverage is high.

In Figure 9, we show reserve leverage across Asia life insurers. Broadly speaking, insurers with a consistent track record of conservative reserving tend to command a valuation premium versus peers and exhibit lower share-price volatility through the cycle. In our coverage, AIA Group, Samsung Life and Thai Life stand out in this regard.

Figure 9: Asia Life Insurance: Reserve leverage comparison



Source: Each company's FY25 annual report. Note: 1) India insurers' data is based on FY26 due to difference in fiscal year. 2) For Cathay FHC, and Fubon FHC, the life segment standalone balance sheet was used for analysis. For Ping An, L&H book value and BEL reserve was used, instead of group basis.

Quality of IFRS equity

While we use reported book value as the basis for our conceptual leverage analysis, the quality of IFRS equity is ultimately a question of loss absorption. In other words, beyond the potential to enhance ROE through underwriting leverage, the key question is how much of reported equity is genuinely available to absorb losses under stress.

We would argue that not all book value is created equal. This is particularly important under IFRS-17/9, where reported equity can include several layers of capital with very different levels of certainty, liquidity and resilience. Some equity is hard, realised and immediately loss-absorbing. Other components are more assumption-driven, valuation-sensitive or dependent on future profitability, and are therefore further away from a true cash cushion. As a result, leverage calculated on reported book value can materially understate economic risk if the quality of that book value is weak.

A useful way to assess an insurer's capital base is to think of it as a stack of layers. At the highest-quality end are common equity (share capital) and retained earnings. These are typically the strongest forms of capital because they are tangible, realised and available to absorb losses. We discussed the distinction between distributable and non-distributable retained earnings in our previous note (for details: [Asia Insurance: Life company analysis: dividends need cash, not just IFRS profit](#)), so we do not revisit that topic here. Beyond retained earnings, excess capital and reserve margins can also provide meaningful protection, although the degree of confidence depends on the reserving position and the nature of the business.

Further down the quality spectrum are reserves recognised through other comprehensive income, or OCI, and revaluation gains. Under IFRS-17/9, fair value movements in both assets and liabilities are often reflected in OCI, which can bring the reported balance sheet closer to an economic valuation framework. However, while these items may have economic value, they are less reliable as loss-absorbing capital in stress.

These OCI reserves and revaluation gains can be reversed quickly when interest rates, credit spreads, equity markets or liability discount rates move adversely. As a result, investors should treat them as lower-quality components of book value than realised earnings or common equity.

Hybrid debt and subordinated debt can also contribute to regulatory capital, although their loss-absorbing capacity depends on structure, ranking and regulatory treatment.

High-quality shareholders' equity (book value) should be liquid, realised, unrestricted and not overly dependent on management assumptions. Cash, retained earnings, common equity and surplus capital are usually viewed favourably because they can absorb adverse claims experience, reserve strengthening, market volatility or operational losses. Lower-quality shareholders' equity, by contrast, tends to rely more heavily on future assumptions, asset valuation gains, discount-rate movements or accounting estimates. These items may be valid within the IFRS-17/9 book value framework, but they can reverse quickly if macro conditions deteriorate or operating assumptions weaken.

Under IFRS-17, CSM, or estimated future profit, is often considered part of comprehensive equity, defined as book value plus net CSM. We also note that some

investors compare insurers' comprehensive equity with market cap as an alternative to an embedded value, or EV, multiple. In this leverage note, however, we do not include CSM in our underwriting leverage or asset leverage calculations. Instead, we use reported book value, or IFRS equity, as the capital base. However, as CSM is partially or fully recognised as capital under various market solvency regimes, we include CSM in our financial leverage calculation. This better reflects how debt is assessed against the broader regulatory capital base.

Consider two insurers, each reporting US\$100 of comprehensive equity. Company A has US\$70 of retained earnings, US\$20 of share capital, and US\$10 linked to CSM. We think that this points to a high-quality capital base, as most of the equity is realised, tangible and loss-absorbing. Company B also reports US\$100 of comprehensive equity, but this comprises US\$20 of share capital, US\$20 of retained earnings, US\$40 of asset valuation gains reflected in OCI, and US\$20 linked to CSM. The reported equity is the same, but the quality is clearly weaker. OCI gains can reverse quickly in adverse financial markets, while CSM-linked value can decline if actuarial or operating assumptions are strengthened.

Table 2: Comparison example of IFRS-17 equity composition

US\$

	Insurer A	Insurer B
Comprehensive equity	100	100
Retained earnings	70	20
Share capital	20	20
CSM	10	20
Asset valuation gains reflected in OCI	0	40

Source: J.P. Morgan.

This is not merely theoretical. In FY24-25, Korea's insurers have experienced almost 15-17% of beginning CSM balance as annual CSM adjustments or CSM cuts, on average, reflecting assumption strengthening (Table 6). This reinforces our view that investors should assess not only the level of leverage, but also the quality of the capital base against which that leverage is measured.

Table 3: Korea Insurance: CSM variance trend

KRW in billion, %

	Samsung Life	Hanwha Life	Samsung F&M	Hyundai M&F	DB Insurance
CSM (ending) - 2023	12,247	9,238	13,303	9,079	12,152
CSM (ending) - 2024	12,902	9,109	14,074	8,248	12,232
% growth	5%	-1%	6%	-9%	1%
CSM variance - 2024	-1,705	-1,751	-1,558	-2,038	-2,142
% of volatility compared to beginning CSM	-14%	-19%	-12%	-22%	-18%
CSM (ending) - 2025	13,218	8,714	14,168	8,902	12,205
% growth	2%	-4%	1%	8%	0%
CSM variance - 2025	-1,758	-1,997	-1,686	-800	-2,117
% of volatility compared to beginning CSM	-14%	-22%	-12%	-10%	-17%

Source: Each company's FY23-25 annual reports.

Capital quality: headline leverage can mislead

We believe assessing the quality of book value is critical when analysing underwriting leverage. Headline leverage ratios can look manageable, but the underlying economic leverage may be materially higher if reported equity includes items that are less immediately loss-absorbing.

For non-life insurers, the simple premium-to-book ratio uses reported equity as the denominator. If net written premiums are US\$300 and book value is US\$100, headline underwriting leverage is 3.0x. However, if only US\$60 of that equity is genuinely loss-absorbing, such as share capital and retained earnings, economic leverage is US\$300 divided by US\$60, or 5.0x. In this case, accounting leverage appears manageable, but the underlying economic leverage is meaningfully higher.

The same logic applies to life reserve leverage. If insurance reserves are US\$800 and book value is US\$100, headline reserve leverage is 8.0x. However, if US\$40 of book value reflects unrealised gains on financial assets, such as equity valuation gains in OCI, the more relevant loss-absorbing equity base may be closer to US\$60. This is calculated as US\$100 of reported book value less US\$40 of OCI valuation gains. On this adjusted basis, reserve leverage rises to 13.3x, rather than 8.0x. This represents a materially different risk profile and highlights why leverage should be assessed against the quality of capital, not only the reported amount.

For non-life insurers, this adjustment is relatively straightforward, as OCI reserves, or fair value reserves, are often the main area of focus. For life insurers, however, IFRS-17 introduces an additional layer of complexity, particularly through the contractual service margin, or CSM.

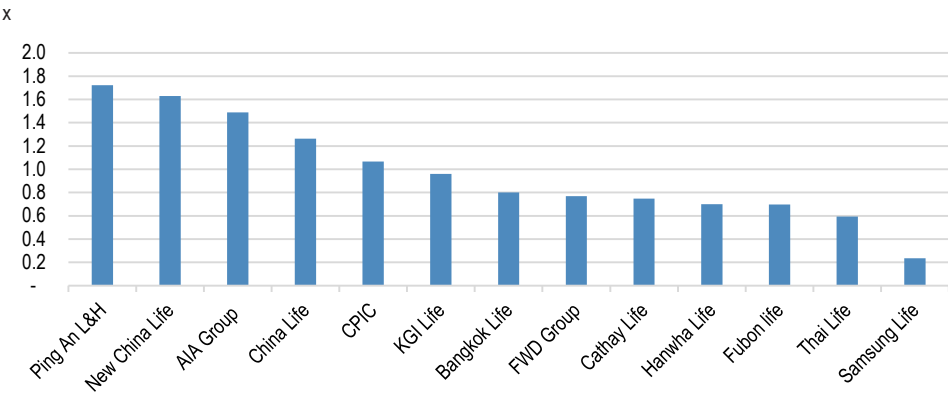
CSM represents estimated future unearned profit expected from existing life policies. It is economically relevant because it captures profit that should emerge over time if assumptions are met. However, it is not the same as hard capital. It is future profit, not profit already earned, and therefore sits further away from cash or immediately loss-absorbing equity.

Consider two life insurers, each with US\$2B of comprehensive equity (=book value + CSM), and US\$3B of market cap. Both therefore trade at 1.5x price to comprehensive equity. The first insurer has US\$1.5B of book value and US\$0.5B of CSM. The second has US\$0.5B of book value and US\$1.5B of CSM. Assume neither has OCI valuation gains. On a simple comprehensive equity basis, both appear to trade on the same valuation multiple. However, the quality of that capital base is very different.

Book value is closer to hard capital, while CSM remains dependent on future experience. Mortality, morbidity, lapses, expenses, investment returns and discount rates can all move against the company. CSM can absorb certain adverse changes through IFRS-17 accounting mechanisms, including under both the general measurement model, or GMM, and the variable fee approach, or VFA, but it is not as robust as retained earnings or paid-in common equity. More importantly, a capital base heavily weighted towards CSM may offer more limited dividend capacity than one supported by realised book value.

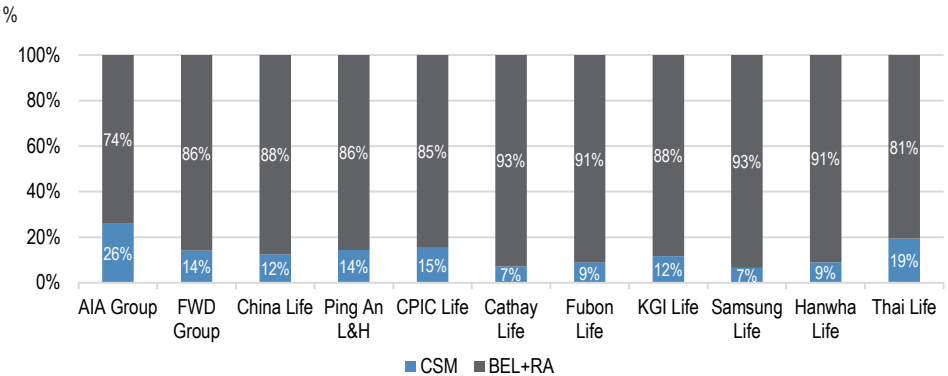
In Figure 10, we compare the mix of CSM and book value across Asia insurers.

Figure 10: Asia Life Insurance: CSM over book value analysis (FY25)



Source: Each company's FY25 annual report. Note: 1) India insurers' data is based on FY26 due to difference in fiscal year. 2) For Cathay FHC, and Fubon FHC, the life segment standalone balance sheet was used for analysis. For Ping An, Ping An L&H book value was used, instead of group basis.

Figure 11: Asia Life Insurance: Insurance contract liability breakdown



Source: Each company's FY25 annual report.

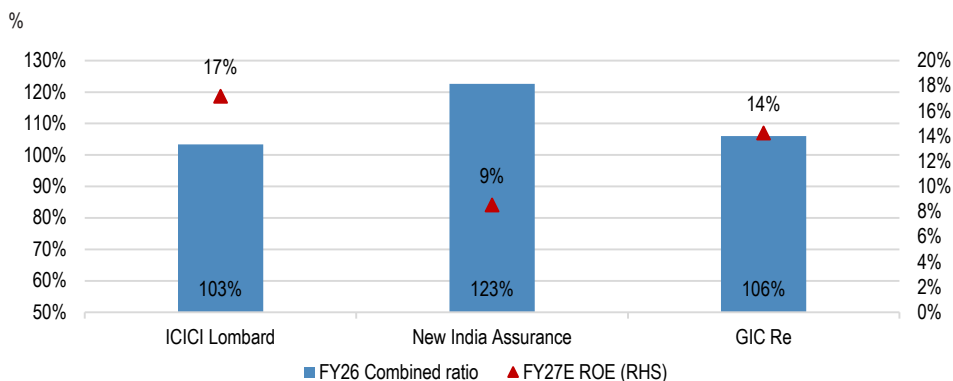
Asset leverage

Insurers collect premiums upfront and may hold policyholder funds for months, years or, for life insurers, decades before claims or benefits are paid. This allows the investment portfolio to become materially larger than shareholders' equity, creating asset leverage. We assess asset leverage as total balance sheet assets divided by IFRS equity (i.e., book value). In simple terms, this measures investment risk per dollar of capital and shows how exposed an insurer's equity base is to movements in its asset portfolio.

Asset leverage is intrinsic to the insurance model and explains why insurer earnings are driven by both insurance profit and investment profit. In some markets, investment income can remain a key earnings driver even when underwriting profitability is weak.

India's non-life insurance sector is a good example. Despite combined ratios consistently above 100%, suggesting that additional underwriting leverage is not necessarily attractive on a standalone basis, insurers have still generated ROE of around 15% to 20%, supported by asset leverage and investment income.

Figure 12: India Insurance: Combined ratio vs. ROE (RHS)



Source: Each company's FY26 earnings presentation, Bloomberg Finance L.P., J.P. Morgan estimates.

The mechanics are straightforward. Assume an insurer has US\$100 of book value and US\$1,000 of invested assets, implying 10x asset leverage. A 1% increase in investment yield would generate US\$10 of incremental investment income, equivalent to a 10% uplift to pre-tax ROE, all else equal. This is why even modest changes in reinvestment yields, bond yields, equity markets or asset mix can have a material impact on earnings and valuation.

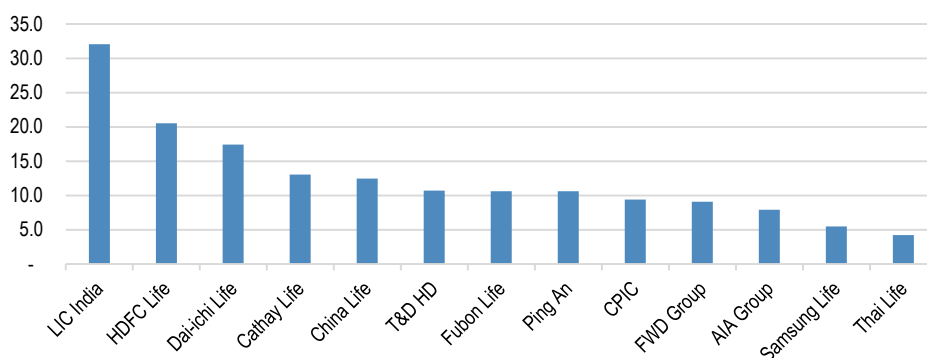
The reverse is also true. In periods of market stress, high asset leverage can accelerate pressure on capital, book value and solvency ratios. Small moves in macro drivers can create outsized balance sheet effects. In this context, asset leverage provides a useful lens on an insurer's underlying macro gearing.

In Figure 13/Figure 14, we show asset leverage across major Asian insurers. Non-life insurers have relatively low asset leverage, at 4x on average, compared with 14x for life insurers. We think this largely reflects differences in liability duration and cash-flow characteristics. Non-life insurers typically have shorter-duration liabilities and more

frequent claims settlement, with auto insurance being a good example. As a result, they tend to hold more deposits and shorter-duration bonds, leading to a more conservative asset-leverage profile. Life insurers, by contrast, have longer-duration and less liquid liabilities, which support higher asset leverage, at 14x on average.

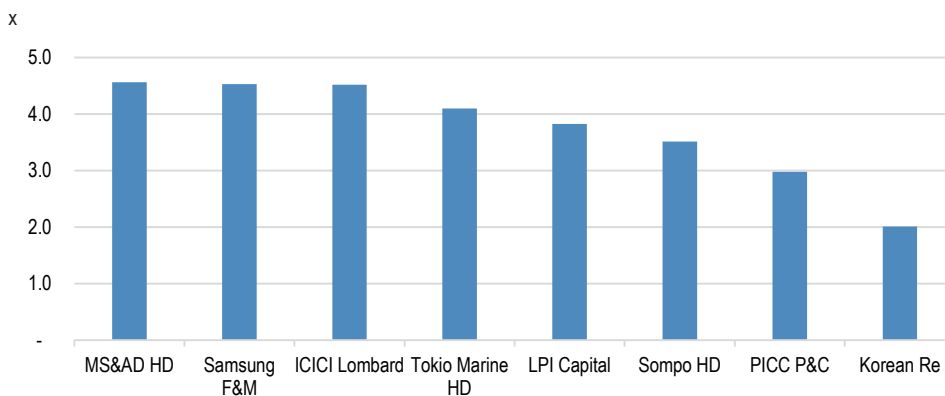
Relatively higher asset leverage among Indian insurers, compared with other Asian markets, appears to reflect a less stringent solvency capital framework at this stage, as well as a relatively simple product mix. Among life insurers, AIA, Samsung Life and Thai Life appear more conservative in their use of asset leverage. By contrast, Dai-ichi Life, Cathay FHC and China Life show relatively high leverage versus domestic peers.

Figure 13: Asia Life Insurance: Asset leverage (FY25)



Source: Each company's FY25 annual report. Note: 1) India insurers' data is based on FY26 due to difference in fiscal year. 2) For Cathay FHC, and Fubon FHC, the life segment standalone balance sheet was used for analysis. For Ping An Group, banking and asset management segment's balance sheet was excluded.

Figure 14: Asia Non-Life Insurance: Asset leverage (FY25)

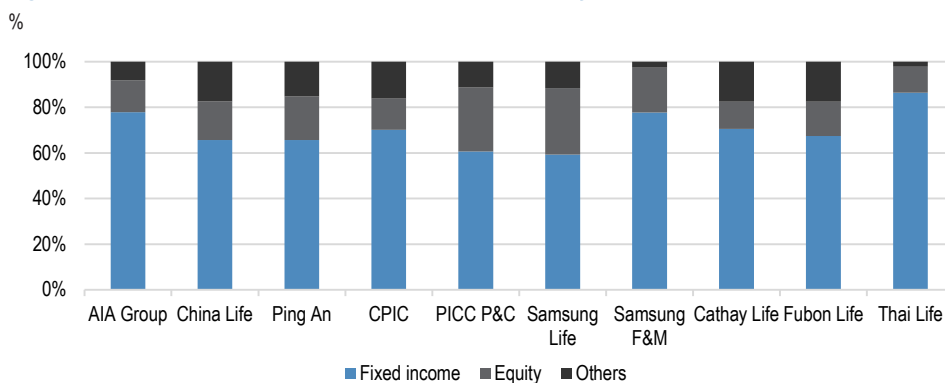


Source: Each company's FY25 annual report. Note: India insurers' data is based on FY26 due to difference in fiscal year.

While Asian insurers' asset leverage does not appear excessive relative to developed-market peers, typically 10x to 20x for life insurers, 3x to 6x for non-life insurers and 8x to 14x for composite insurers, it is also important to assess the underlying asset-allocation mix.

Our initial view is that asset allocation across Asian insurers remains relatively conservative versus developed-market peers. Portfolios continue to show a clear bias towards high-quality fixed-income assets, with more than 70% of AUM, on average, allocated to interest-bearing assets. Exposure to Level 3 assets, such as private credit, private debt and private equity, remains limited. (Figure 15).

Figure 15: Asia Insurance: Investment portfolio breakdown by asset class (FY25)



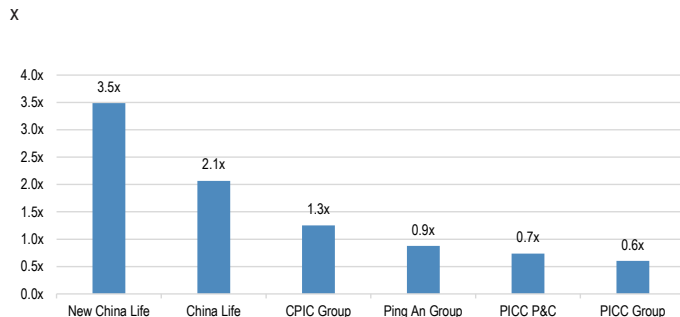
Source: Each company's FY25 annual report. Note: AIA Group investment portfolio is based on non-par and surplus assets portfolio breakdown.

There are three points worth highlighting.

First, asset leverage across Asia appears relatively reasonable, at 14x for life insurers and 4x for non-life insurers. We think this reflects two factors. The first is the gradual strengthening of solvency capital frameworks by Asian insurance regulators, with higher capital charges across risk components, including asset risk. The second is the sector's growth profile. Low insurance penetration still requires insurers to retain capital to support business expansion, which discourages excessive balance-sheet leverage. Although Asia's solvency capital standards remain more generous than Solvency II in Europe, we think asset leverage is being managed with a broadly conservative stance.

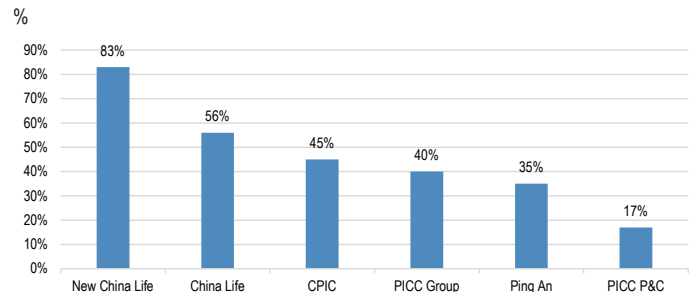
Second, Chinese insurers are becoming more equity-sensitive. Their balance sheets have shifted away from the traditional fixed-income-heavy allocation, with a meaningful increase in exposure to China A-shares and, to a lesser extent, Hong Kong equities. This creates greater upside in a rising equity market, but also increases earnings and capital sensitivity if market conditions reverse. In Figure 16/Figure 17, we show each insurer's equity exposure relative to book value and the associated sensitivity to market movements.

Figure 16: China Insurance: Equity holding vs. book value (FY25)



Source: Each company's FY25 annual report.

Figure 17: China Insurance: FY26E consensus NP sensitivity to 10% movement of SHCOMP index

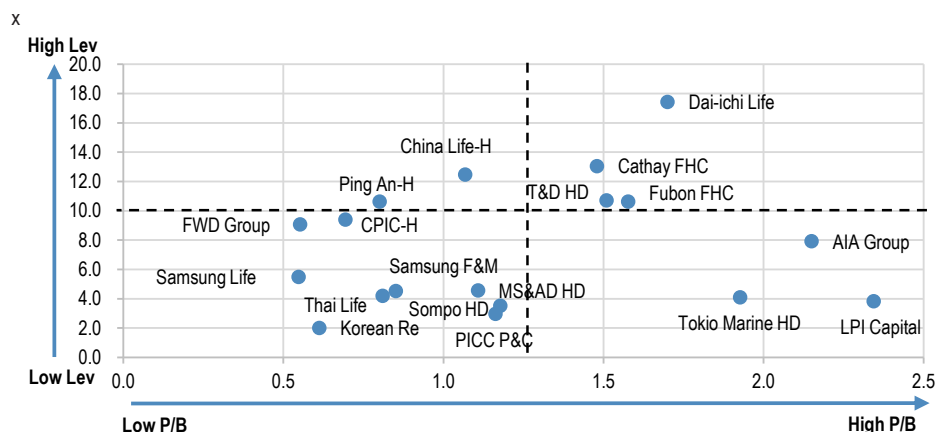


Source: Each company's FY25 annual report, Bloomberg Finance L.P., J.P. Morgan estimates.
Note: Consensus data as of 13 July 2026.

Third, Asia remains at a relatively early stage in adding illiquid and harder-to-value Level 3 assets, particularly among life insurers. We think this partly reflects regulators' conservative approach to Level 3 assets, as well as the relatively short liability duration of Asian life insurers. Lapse experience also appears less stable beyond year 10 after new policy sales, which limits the scope to take on more illiquid assets. For further detail on Level 3 asset exposure in Asia, please see [Asia Insurance Strategy: Level 3 exposure rising: tilt to quality - India leads; China constructive; Korea selective](#).

One final observation is valuation. In Figure 18, we compare insurers with higher and lower asset leverage against their relative valuation multiples. The analysis suggests that insurers with higher asset leverage tend to trade at a discount to peers, reflecting greater sensitivity to macro, market and solvency risks.

Figure 18: Asia Insurance: Asset leverage vs. FY26E P/B



Source: Each company's FY25 annual report, Bloomberg Finance L.P., J.P. Morgan estimates. Note: 1) Price data as of 28 Jul 2026. 2) India insurers are excluded from presentation due to simplicity. 3) India insurers' data is based on FY26 due to difference in fiscal year. For Cathay FHC, and Fubon FHC, the life segment standalone balance sheet was used for analysis. For Ping An Group, banking and asset management segment's balance sheet was excluded.

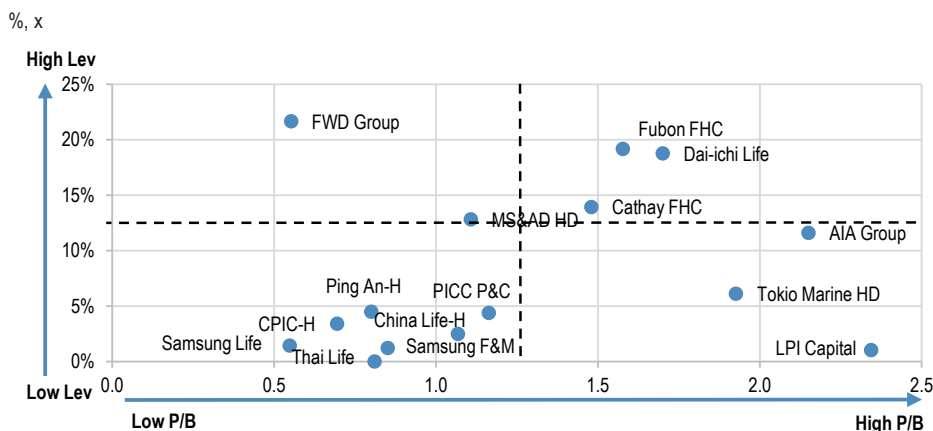
Financial leverage

Debt can be an efficient source of capital for insurers. It can fund acquisitions, support growth or provide capital injections into operating subsidiaries without diluting existing shareholders. However, debt is less flexible than equity. It carries fixed coupons, contractual maturities and, in some cases, call dates. This becomes most relevant in periods of macro stress, when dividend upstreaming from operating subsidiaries may be constrained, while holding company debt still needs to be serviced, redeemed or refinanced.

We define financial leverage as total borrowing divided by total capital, comprising borrowings, IFRS equity and net CSM. We include CSM where appropriate, as comprehensive equity (= IFRS equity + net CSM) is increasingly used by the market to assess financial leverage, although we recognise that CSM is less reliable than hard equity as loss-absorbing capital in stress. In simple terms, this measures financial risk per dollar of capital.

For equity investors, the key issues are holding company liquidity and capital flexibility. Higher financial leverage can limit an insurer's ability to support shareholder returns, pursue M&A or absorb short-term regulatory pressure. It can also become a valuation headwind. In many cases, insurers with higher debt leverage trade at a discount to lower-levered peers, reflecting greater refinancing risk, weaker capital flexibility and higher sensitivity to stressed market conditions. In Figure 19, we compare insurers' valuation multiples against their financial leverage.

Figure 19: Asia Insurance: Financial leverage vs. FY26E P/B



Source: Each company's FY25 annual report, Bloomberg Finance L.P., J.P. Morgan estimates. Note: 1) Price data as of 28 Jul 2026. 2) India insurers are excluded from presentation due to simplicity. 3) India insurers' data is based on FY26 due to difference in fiscal year. 3) For Cathay FHC, and Fubon FHC, the life segment standalone balance sheet was used for analysis. For Ping An Group, banking and asset management segment's balance sheet was excluded.

Rating agencies also monitor financial leverage closely, with important implications for bond investors. If debt rises too far, typically above 25% to 30% of comprehensive equity, both credit ratings and financial strength ratings might come under pressure. This could raise funding costs and, for some insurers, weaken commercial competitiveness.

In Figure 20, our key observation is that Asian insurers appear to use debt more conservatively than developed-market peers. We think this partly reflects the fact that

financial leverage is less widely used as a capital-management tool in Asia than underwriting or asset leverage. In addition, solvency capital frameworks often limit the recognition of debt as eligible capital, in some cases to a fixed proportion of required capital, such as 25%. Financing costs can also become an additional burden for insurers with smaller distributable cash-flow generation.

Why have Asian insurers not been more active in financial leverage?

Unlike insurers in developed markets, Asian insurers have generally been less active in using financial leverage to optimise excess capital. There are some exceptions, including names that genuinely require larger capital buffers given weaker capital positions, such as Hanwha Life and Hyundai M&F in Korea, as well as Taiwanese life insurers, which have historically been more active in debt financing.

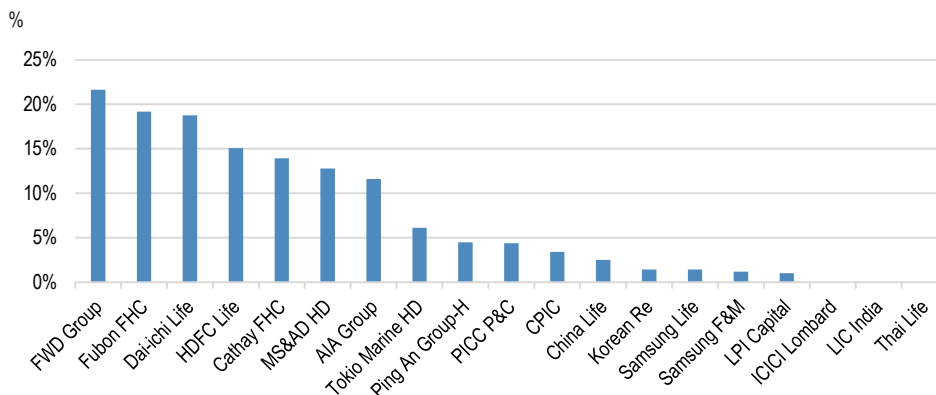
We believe this largely reflects the fact that Asia's solvency capital frameworks have been in a strengthening phase over the past decade (For details: [*Asia Insurance: Summer Series: A Guide to Solvency Capital beyond all the Abbreviations*](#)). As a result, management focus has been centred more on '**capital adequacy**' than '**capital efficiency**'. Faster business growth across the region has also required insurers to retain capital to support expansion. In this context, it is not surprising that AIA introduced its enhanced capital management policy, based on underlying free surplus generation, only two years ago.

Looking ahead, we expect the debate to shift. Returning excess capital to shareholders is becoming an increasingly important market focus, while many Asian markets have upgraded their solvency capital frameworks alongside IFRS-17/9 adoption. As regulatory capital regimes mature, management dialogue and investor focus should increasingly move from capital adequacy towards capital efficiency, particularly among well-capitalised or adequately capitalised insurers.

Japan insurers stand out in this regard, including T&D Holdings. We also see scope for stronger shareholder-return efforts from Samsung group insurers, namely Samsung Life and Samsung F&M, as well as Thai Life. By contrast, we do not expect a major change in the financial leverage structure of Indian insurers, given their faster medium-term business growth outlook and the prospect of further gradual strengthening in solvency capital requirements.

For China insurers, we expect debt financing to become more active after the foreseeable implementation of C-ROSS II Phase 3, particularly among life insurers. Meanwhile, less well-capitalised insurers are likely to remain focused on protecting their capital base through macro and regulatory cycles, maintaining a more conservative capital adequacy dialogue.

Figure 20: Asia Insurance: Financial leverage comparison



Source: Each company's FY25 annual report. Note: 1) India insurers' data is based on FY26 due to difference in fiscal year. 2) For Cathay FHC, and Fubon FHC, the life segment standalone balance sheet was used for analysis. For Ping An Group, banking and asset management segment's balance sheet was excluded.

Debt servicing capacity

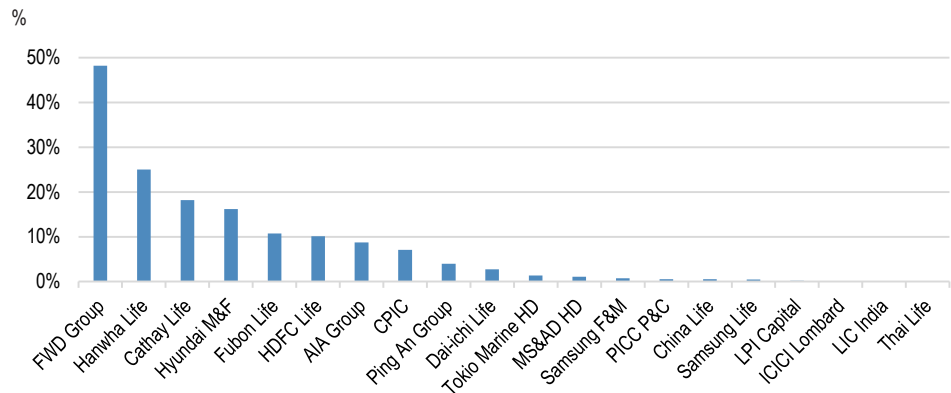
Debt servicing capacity is another important lens when assessing financial leverage. Financial leverage is not necessarily problematic in itself. The key question is whether the insurer can comfortably meet its debt obligations under both normal and stressed conditions. In other words, debt servicing capacity measures the sustainability of financial leverage.

This is particularly important for insurers because, unlike banks, they already carry significant obligations, including policy claims, benefit payments, reserve strengthening and regulatory capital requirements. Debt adds another fixed obligation through interest payments and principal repayment, which must be met regardless of whether underwriting performance is profitable.

We assess this through fixed interest cover, measured as operating profit before debt costs divided by interest expense. In Figure 21, we show debt servicing capacity across insurers. The sector median fixed interest cover is currently around 2% of pre-tax profit before interest expense, which we do not view as stressful, helped by relatively low funding costs and credit spreads. That said, in a crisis, group cash flows can become more constrained, making interest payments and refinancing capacity more important areas of focus. Overall, we see limited near-term risk from debt servicing costs, although insurers with higher debt leverage relative to the sector are FWD Group, Hanwha Life and Hyundai M&F.

Lastly, FWD's cash generation from the in-force book is entering an acceleration phase. We forecast OPAT to rise from US\$499m in 2025 to US\$856m in 2028E (20% CAGR). The company's potentially significant improvement in debt-servicing capacity could therefore serve as a useful example of how financial leverage should evolve as the business scales.

Figure 21: Asia Insurance: Interest expense as % of pre-tax profit before interest expense



Source: Each company's FY25 annual report, J.P. Morgan calculations. Note: 1) India insurers' data is based on FY26 due to difference in fiscal year. 2) For Cathay FHC, and Fubon FHC, the life segment standalone balance sheet was used for analysis. For Ping An Group, banking and asset management segment's balance sheet was excluded

Why this matters

Financial leverage should not be analysed in isolation. For insurers, debt risk is ultimately tied to underwriting quality, reserve adequacy, investment spreads, asset-liability management (ALM) and the stability of operating earnings. The balance-sheet leverage ratio may look unchanged, but debt-servicing capacity can deteriorate quickly if the earnings base weakens.

For a non-life insurer, operating earnings are driven by two main components: underwriting profit and investment profit. These earnings ultimately determine the insurer's ability to service debt. For example, if an insurer writes premiums of US \$1,000 with a 96% combined ratio, it generates underwriting profit of US\$40 (= US \$1,000 x (1-96%)). If investment profit is US\$60 and assuming no tax, operating profit is US\$100. Against interest expense of US\$20, fixed interest cover is 5x (=US\$100/US \$20). This would generally be viewed as healthy.

However, this can change quickly if underwriting performance deteriorates as the cycle turns. If the combined ratio rises to 102% due to higher-than-expected claims inflation, the insurer moves from an underwriting profit of US\$40 to an underwriting loss of US \$20. This is a realistic scenario given the cyclical nature of non-life underwriting, which is shaped by competition, regulatory intervention, claims inflation and pricing discipline. Assuming investment income remains at US\$60, operating profit falls to US \$40, while interest expense remains unchanged at US\$20. Fixed interest cover therefore declines from 5x to 2x. In other words, financial leverage as a balance-sheet measure has not changed, but debt-servicing capacity has weakened materially. Under this scenario, dividend capacity and balance-sheet flexibility would likely come under pressure.

For life insurers, debt-servicing capacity depends on a broader set of drivers, including mortality experience, morbidity trends, investment spreads, asset-liability management, fee income and reserve movements. For example, if a life insurer has assets of US \$100B, earns a 5% investment yield and credits policyholders at 4%, the 1% net spread generates profit of US\$1B. This was broadly the case for Chinese life insurers historically, when negotiable bank deposit rates were around 5.5%, supported by loan-

to-deposit (LDR) ratio regulation, while maximum guaranteed returns to customers were set at 2.5% to 3.5%. Against interest expense of US\$100m, fixed interest cover would be 10x, which would appear strong.

However, if the spread compresses from 1% to 0.3% following a series of interest rate cuts, profit falls from US\$1B to US\$300m. This is because investment yields on interest-bearing assets can decline faster than liability funding costs, which are often fixed or sticky due to minimum guaranteed rates embedded in life policies. We generally view these macro-driven cash-flow changes as beyond the scope of management action, rather than a reflection of management execution. With interest expense still at US\$100m, fixed interest cover declines from 10x to 3x. Again, debt outstanding has not changed, but the capacity to service that debt has weakened significantly.

Reserve movements can have a similar impact. An insurer may initially report operating profit of US\$100 and interest expense of US\$20, implying fixed interest cover of 5x. However, if adverse reserve development requires reserve strengthening of US\$30, based on reserves of US\$1,000 and a 3% strengthening requirement, operating profit falls to US\$70 and fixed interest cover declines to 3.5x. The insurer has not added debt, but its debt-servicing capacity has clearly weakened.

In conclusion, financial leverage is not simply a question of how much debt an insurer carries. It is ultimately a question of how resilient the earnings base is through underwriting cycles, spread compression and reserve adjustments. While this is clearly relevant for fixed-income investors, it is equally important for equity investors. Leverage should therefore be assessed alongside earnings quality, capital flexibility and dividend sustainability, rather than as a standalone balance-sheet metric, as it has direct implications for distributable 'cash' profit to shareholders.

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Samsung Fire & Marine Insurance (000810.KS, 000810 KS) Price Chart



Date	Rating	Price (W)	Price Target (W)
13-Nov-23	N	250000	280,000
14-May-24	OW	335500	450,000
01-Aug-24	OW	372500	480,000
12-Feb-25	OW	367500	500,000
18-Aug-25	OW	441000	530,000
07-Jan-26	N	492500	500,000
20-Feb-26	UW	569000	450,000
14-Apr-26	N	470000	500,000
04-Jun-26	OW	640000	800,000

Source: Bloomberg Finance L.P. and J.P. Morgan; price data adjusted for stock splits and dividends.
Initiated coverage Sep 24, 2002. All share prices are as of market close on the previous business day.

Samsung Life Insurance (032830.KS, 032830 KS) Price Chart



Date	Rating	Price (W)	Price Target (W)
25-Oct-23	OW	71100	100,000
21-Feb-24	OW	81700	110,000
01-Mar-24	OW	96900	130,000
01-Aug-24	OW	96500	140,000
19-Aug-24	OW	88800	150,000
26-Jun-25	OW	129000	170,000
13-Nov-25	OW	166600	200,000
20-Feb-26	OW	210000	275,000
17-Apr-26	OW	257000	310,000
06-May-26	OW	262000	370,000
21-May-26	OW	312500	430,000
04-Jun-26	OW	463000	580,000

Source: Bloomberg Finance L.P. and J.P. Morgan; price data adjusted for stock splits and dividends.
Initiated coverage Feb 14, 2011. All share prices are as of market close on the previous business day.

T&D Holdings (8795) (8795.T, 8795 JP) Price Chart



Date	Rating	Price (Y)	Price Target (Y)
27-Sep-23	N	2603	2,780
05-Dec-23	OW	2178	2,610
26-Mar-24	N	2692	2,770
21-Jun-24	N	2618	2,790
17-Sep-24	OW	2394	3,140
09-Jan-25	OW	2944	3,300
02-Apr-25	OW	3176	3,700
19-Jun-25	OW	3232	4,300
19-Dec-25	OW	3538	4,130
04-Jun-26	NR	4231	--
23-Jun-26	OW	4984	5,300

Source: Bloomberg Finance L.P. and J.P. Morgan; price data adjusted for stock splits and dividends.
Initiated coverage Jun 11, 2002. All share prices are as of market close on the previous business day.

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IB clients**	95%	92%	87%

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Meiji Yasuda Life Insurance - J.P. Morgan Credit Opinion History

	Date	Action	Rating/Designation	Ticker/ISIN
Issuer	10 Nov 25	Initiate	Overweight	MYLIFE
5.8% 2054 / '34c *	10 Nov 25	Initiate	Overweight	US585270AD32
5.1% 2048 / '28c	10 Nov 25	Initiate	Neutral	US585270AC58
6.1% 2055 / '35c	10 Nov 25	Initiate	Overweight	US585270AE15

***Indicates representative/primary bond/instrument.**

The table(s) above show the recommendation changes made by J.P. Morgan Credit Research Analysts in the subject company and/or instruments over the past three years (or, if no recommendation changes were made during that period, the most recent change). Notes: Effective April 11, 2016, J.P. Morgan changed its Credit Research Ratings System. Please see the Explanation of Credit Research Ratings below for the new definitions. The previous rating system no longer should be relied upon. For the history prior to April 11, 2016, please call 1-800-447-0406 or e-mail research.disclosure.inquiries@jpmorgan.com.

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